1.1 Real Numbers, Eulidean Spaces

Axioms of Addition:

- **Axioms:**

A1 (Associativity)	$x + (y + z) = (x + y) + z$	$\forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$
A2 (Neutral element)	$x + 0 = x$	$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
A3 (Inverse element)	$x + (-x) = 0$	$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}\ \exists(-x) \in \mathbb{R}$
A4 (Commutativity)	$x + y = y + x$	$\forall x, y \in \mathbb{R}$

Axioms of Multiplication:

- **Axioms:**

M1 (Associativity)	$x \cdot (y \cdot z) = (x \cdot y) \cdot z$	$\forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$
M2 (Neutral element)	$x \cdot 1 = x$	$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
M3 (Inverse element)	$x \cdot x^{-1} = 1$	$\forall x \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \{0\}\ \exists x^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}$
M4 (Commutativity)	$x \cdot z = z \cdot x$	$\forall x, z \in \mathbb{R}$

Distributivity (Compatibility of addition and mult.):

- **Axiom:**

D	$x \cdot (y + z) = xy + xz = (y + z) \cdot x$	$\forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$

Order Axioms:

- **Axioms:**

O1 (Reflexivity)	$x \leq x$	$\forall x \in \mathbb{R}$
O2 (Transitivity)	$(x \leq y \wedge y \leq z) \Rightarrow x \leq z$	
O3 (Antisymmetry)	$(x \leq y \wedge y \leq x) \Rightarrow x = y$	
O4 (Totality)	$\forall x, y \in \mathbb{R}:\ x \leq y$ or $y \leq x$	

Compatibility (Consistency with addition and mult.):

- **Axioms:**

K1	$x \leq y \Rightarrow x + z \leq y + z$	$\forall x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}$
K2	$x \geq 0,\ y \geq 0 \Rightarrow xy \geq 0$	$\forall x, y \in \mathbb{R}$

R 1.1.5:

- The set $\mathbb{Q}$ of rational numbers, equipped with addition, multiplication, and the order relation $\leq$, satisfies the above axioms.

V (Completeness axiom):

- The set $\mathbb{R}$ is **order complete**: For any two nonempty sets $A, B \subset \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$a \leq b \quad \text{for all } a \in A,\ b \in B,$$

there exists a number $c \in \mathbb{R}$ satisfying

$$a \leq c \leq b \quad \forall a \in A,\ b \in B.$$

C 1.1.6:

- **The consequences of above axioms are:**

1. Uniqueness of the additive and multiplicative inverse.
2. $0 \cdot x = 0 \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$.
3. $(-1) \cdot x = -x \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{R}$, in particular $(-1)^2 = 1$.
4. $y \geq 0 \iff (-y) \leq 0$.
5. $y^2 \geq 0 \quad \forall y \in \mathbb{R}$, in particular $1 = 1 \cdot 1 \geq 0$.
6. If $x \leq y$ and $u \leq v$, then $x + u \leq y + v$.
7. If $0 \leq x \leq y$ and $0 \leq u$, then $xu \leq yu$.

T (Completeness of the real numbers):

- $\mathbb{R}$ is a commutative ordered field that is order-complete.

C 1.1.7 (Archimedean Principle):

- 1. For $x \in \mathbb{R}$ and $y > 0$ there exists $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that

$$ny > x.$$

2. For every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that

$$\frac{1}{n} < \varepsilon.$$

T 1.1.8:

- For every $t \geq 0$, $t \in \mathbb{R}$, the equation $x^2 = t$ has a solution in $\mathbb{R}$.

D (Bounded set - upper/lower bounded):

- A set $A \in \mathbb{R}$ is called upper bounded if

$$\exists b \in R \quad \forall a \in A : a \leq b.$$

Each such b is called an upper bound for A. (Similarly for lower bound.)

T (Supremum Infimum):

- 1. Maximum and minimum (if exists) are unique

2. Every non-empty subset bounded below (above) has a unique infimum (supremum).

3. $S = \sup(X) \Leftrightarrow$

$$(\forall x \in X : x \leq S) \wedge (\forall \varepsilon > 0\ \exists x \in X : \quad x > S - \varepsilon)$$

4. $I = \inf(X) \Leftrightarrow$

$$(\forall x \in X : x \geq I) \wedge (\forall \varepsilon > 0\ \exists x \in X : \quad x < I + \varepsilon)$$

D (Maximum):

- Maximum is:

$$\max\{x, y\} := \begin{cases} x, & \text{if } y \leq x, \\ y, & \text{if } x \leq y. \end{cases}$$

D (Minimum):

- Minimum is:

$$\min\{x, y\} := \begin{cases} y, & \text{if } y \leq x, \\ x, & \text{if } x \leq y. \end{cases}$$

T (Properties of the absolute value):

- Properties:

1. $|x| \geq 0$.
2. $|x + y| \leq |x| + |y|$ (triangle inequality).
3. $|x + y| \geq \big||x| - |y|\big|$ (inv. triangle inequality).

T (Young's inequality):

- For every $\varepsilon > 0$ and all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}$ it holds:

$$2|xy| \leq \varepsilon x^2 + \frac{1}{\varepsilon} y^2.$$

1.2 Vectors and Vector Spaces

D (inner product):

- For $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ the standard inner product is

$$x \cdot y = \langle x, y \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^{n} x_i y_i$$

D (Euclidean norm):

- The Euclidean norm is

$$\|x\| = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{n} x_i^2}$$

D (Euclidean distance):

- The Euclidean distance is

$$d(x, y) = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{n} (x_i - y_i)^2}$$

D (Triangle inequality):

- For all $x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}^n$:

$$\|x - z\| \leq \|x - y\| + \|y - z\|$$

1.3 Complex Numbers

D (Complex number):

- A complex number is

$$z = a + ib, \quad a, b \in \mathbb{R}$$

D (set of complex numbers):

- The set of complex numbers is

$$\mathbb{C} = \{a + ib \mid a, b \in \mathbb{R}\}$$

D (Terminology of complex numbers):

- Terminology
  - $a = \mathrm{Re}(z)$ — real part
  - $b = \mathrm{Im}(z)$ — imaginary part
  - $i^2 = -1$
  - If $a = 0$, the number is purely imaginary

D (Complex numbers Addition and Subtraction):

- Let $z_1 = x_1 + iy_1$, $z_2 = x_2 + iy_2$.

$$z_1 + z_2 = (x_1 + x_2) + i(y_1 + y_2)$$

$$z_1 - z_2 = (x_1 - x_2) + i(y_1 - y_2)$$

D (Complex numbers Multiplication):

- Let $z_1 = x_1 + iy_1$, $z_2 = x_2 + iy_2$.

$$z_1 z_2 = x_1 x_2 - y_1 y_2 + i(x_1 y_2 + y_1 x_2)$$

D (Complex conjugate):

- For a complex number $z = x + iy$, the complex conjugate of z is given by

$$\overline{z} = \overline{x + iy} = x - iy.$$

D (Complex numbers Division):

- To divide numbers we use conjugate:

$$\frac{z}{w} = \frac{z\overline{w}}{w\overline{w}} = \frac{z\overline{w}}{|w|^2}$$

D (Properties of the Conjugate):

- Properties are:
  - $z\overline{z} = |z|^2$
  - $z + \overline{z} = 2\,\mathrm{Re}(z), \quad z - \overline{z} = 2i\,\mathrm{Im}(z)$
  - $\overline{\overline{z}} = z$
  - $\overline{z \pm w} = \overline{z} \pm \overline{w}$
  - $\overline{zw} = \overline{z}\,\overline{w}$
  - $z = \overline{z}$, if $z \in \mathbb{R}$
  - $\overline{z} = -z$, z is purely imaginary

D (Modulus):

- The magnitude $|z|$ of a complex number $z = a + ib$ is the length of the corresponding vector.

$$|z| = \sqrt{a^2 + b^2}$$

The distance between two complex numbers z1 and z2 is

$$d(z_1, z_2) = |z_2 - z_1|$$

Triangle inequality works also for complex numbers:

$$|z + w| \leq |z| + |w|$$

D (Euler's Formula):

- The exponential function can be represented by a series expansion as

$$e^x = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^k}{k!}$$

If we substitute $x = it$ into this formula, we obtain Euler's formula.

$$e^{it} = \cos t + i \sin t$$

We can write $sin(t)$ and $cos(t)$ using complex exponential functions.

$$\cos(t) = \frac{e^{it} + e^{-it}}{2}$$

$$\sin(t) = \frac{e^{it} - e^{-it}}{2i}$$

D (Exponential with Complex Argument):

- We can also allow complex arguments for the exponential function. Then the following rules apply:
  - $e^{z+w} = e^z e^w$
  - $e^{a+ib} = e^a(\cos b + i \sin b)$
  - $e^{z+i2\pi} = e^z$

D (Polar Form):

- A complex number can also be described by specifying the distance from the origin and by specifying a suitable angle (**polar form**): $z = re^{i\varphi}$.
  - $r = |z| \geq 0$ - distance
  - $\varphi \in (-\pi, \pi]$ - polar angle
  - $\varphi = \arg(z) = \mathrm{arc}(z)$

D (Polar to Cartesian conversion):

- Polar to Cartesian conversion is:
  - $x = r\cos\varphi$
  - $y = r\sin\varphi$

D (Cartesian to Polar conversion):

- Cartesian to Polar conversion is:
  - $r = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$
  - $\varphi = \arctan \frac{y}{x}$

If $x = 0$:

$$\arg(iy) = \begin{cases} \frac{\pi}{2}, & y > 0 \\ -\frac{\pi}{2}, & y < 0 \end{cases}$$

D (Powers of Complex Numbers):

- The following rules must be observed:
  - $z_1 z_2 = r_1 r_2 e^{i(\varphi_1 + \varphi_2)}$
  - $\frac{z_1}{z_2} = \frac{r_1}{r_2} e^{i(\varphi_1 - \varphi_2)}$
  - $z^n = r^n e^{in\varphi}$

D (Roots from complex numbers):

- For $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the solutions to the equation $z^n = re^{i\varphi}$ are

$$z_k = r^{1/n} e^{i(\varphi/n + 2\pi k/n)}, \quad k = 0, \ldots, n-1$$

D (Quadratic Equations):

- For the quadratic equation

$$az^2 + bz + c = 0,$$

in complex numbers the solution is still

$$z_{1,2} = \frac{-b \pm \sqrt{b^2 - 4ac}}{2a}.$$

D (Fundamental Theorem of Algebra):

- Each polynom

$$p(z) = \sum_{k=0}^{n} a_k z^k, \quad a_k \in \mathbb{C}$$

can be factored into linear factors, i.e. written as

$$p(z) = a_n(z - z_1)(z - z_2)\ldots(z - z_n)$$

The numbers z_k are therefore precisely the zero points of $p(z)$ (with **multiplicity**).

C (non-real roots apper in conjugate pairs):

- Non-real roots of a polynomial with **real** coefficients occur in conjugate pairs $z, \overline{z}$.

1.4 Sequences

D (Sequence):

• A sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ (also written $(a_n)_{n\geq 0}$ or $(a_n)_{n=0}^{\infty}$) is an infinite list of numbers, where each entry is called a *term* of the sequence. A sequence can also be viewed as a function

$$f : \mathbb{N}_0 \to \mathbb{R} \quad (\text{or } f : \mathbb{N} \to \mathbb{R}),$$

whose values are $f(n) = a_n$.

D (Ways to Describe a Sequence):

• One way to describe a sequence is by giving an explicit formula for each term:

$$a_n = f(n).$$

Another possibility is to define the sequence recursively, constructing each new term from previous ones:

$$a_n = g(a_{n-1}, a_{n-2}, \dots).$$

The functions f and g are called the *rule of formation* of the sequence.

D (Convergence/Divergence):

• A sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0} \subset \mathbb{R}$ is called *convergent* if there exists a number $L \in \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0\ \exists N > 0 \text{ such that } \forall n > N : |a_n - L| < \varepsilon.$$

The number L is called the *limit* of the sequence, and we write

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = L.$$

If no such L exists, the sequence is called *divergent*.

T (Uniqueness of the Limit):

• A convergent sequence has exactly one unique limit.

D (Divergence to infinity):

• Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence.

- If
$$\forall M > 0\ \exists N > 0 \text{ such that } \forall n > N : a_n > M,$$
then the sequence diverges to infinity and we write
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \infty.$$
- If
$$\forall M > 0\ \exists N > 0 \text{ such that } \forall n > N : a_n < -M,$$
then the sequence diverges to minus infinity and we write
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = -\infty.$$

D (Subsequence):

• Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence in $\mathbb{R}$. A *subsequence* is a sequence of the form

$$(a_{n_k})_{k\in\mathbb{N}_0},$$

where $(n_k)_{k\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ is a sequence of non-negative integers satisfying

$$n_{k+1} > n_k \quad \text{for all } k \in \mathbb{N}_0.$$

L (Limit of a sequence and its subsequence):

• Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a convergent sequence with limit $L \in \mathbb{R}$. Then every subsequence $(a_{n_k})_{k\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ also converges to the same limit L.

D (Accumulation Point):

• Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence in $\mathbb{R}$. A number $A \in \mathbb{R}$ is called an accumulation point of the sequence if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0\ \forall N \in \mathbb{N}_0\ \exists n \geq N \text{ such that } |a_n - A| < \varepsilon.$$

Intuitively, every interval $(A - \varepsilon, A + \varepsilon)$ contains terms a_n for infinitely many indices n.

T (Characterization of Accumulation Points):

• Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence in $\mathbb{R}$. A number $A \in \mathbb{R}$ is an accumulation point of the sequence if and only if there exists a convergent subsequence $(a_{n_k})_{k\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ such that

$$\lim_{k\to\infty} a_{n_k} = A.$$

C (Accumulation Point of a Convergent Sequence):

• Every convergent sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ in $\mathbb{R}$ has exactly one accumulation point, which coincides with its limit.

C (Infinite Occurrence Near an Accumulation Point):

• Let A be an accumulation point of the sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$. Then for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exist infinitely many terms of the sequence lying in the interval $(A - \varepsilon, A + \varepsilon)$.

T (Algebra of Limits):

• Assume

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = K, \qquad \lim_{n\to\infty} b_n = L$$

with $K, L \neq \pm\infty$ and let C be a constant. Then

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} (a_n + b_n) = K + L$$
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} (a_n - b_n) = K - L$$
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} (a_n b_n) = KL$$
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} (C a_n) = CK$$

If $L \neq 0$ and $b_n \neq 0$ then

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{a_n}{b_n} = \frac{K}{L}.$$

If $K < L$ then there exists N such that $a_n < b_n$ for all $n \geq N$. If there exists N such that $a_n \leq b_n$ for all $n \geq N$, then $K \leq L$.

T (Important Limits):

•
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{\log n}{n} = 0 = \lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{\ln n}{n}$$
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} n^{1/n} = 1$$
$$\lim_{n\to\infty} x^{1/n} = 1 \quad (x > 0)$$
$$\forall x \in \mathbb{R} : \quad \lim_{n\to\infty} \left(1 + \frac{x}{n}\right)^n = e^x$$
$$\forall x \in \mathbb{R} : \quad \lim_{n\to\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 0$$

T (Sandwich Theorem):

• Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ and $(c_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be convergent sequences with

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = L, \qquad \lim_{n\to\infty} c_n = L$$

and suppose there exists N_0 such that

$$a_n \leq b_n \leq c_n \quad \text{for all } n \geq N_0.$$

Then $(b_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ is also convergent and

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} b_n = L.$$

D (Bounded Sequence):

• A sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ is called bounded below or bounded above if the set

$$M = \{a_n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}$$

has a lower bound or an upper bound respectively. A sequence that is bounded both above and below is called a bounded sequence.

D (Monotone Sequence):

• A sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ is called monotone decreasing if

$$m > n \Rightarrow a_m \leq a_n$$

and monotone increasing if

$$m > n \Rightarrow a_m \geq a_n.$$

It is called strictly monotone decreasing if

$$m > n \Rightarrow a_m < a_n$$

and strictly monotone increasing if

$$m > n \Rightarrow a_m > a_n.$$

T (Monotone Convergence Theorem):

- Every bounded and monotone sequence converges.

L (Convergent sequence = bounded):

- Every convergent sequence is bounded.

T Monotone Convergence:

- Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence of real numbers.

(i) A monotone sequence converges if and only if it is bounded.

(ii) If (a_n) is monotonically increasing, then

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \sup\{a_n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}.$$

(iii) If (a_n) is monotonically decreasing, then

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \inf\{a_n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}.$$

D Limit Superior and Limit Inferior:

- Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence.

- *limit superior* of the sequence

$$\limsup_{n\to\infty} a_n = \lim_{n\to\infty} \sup\{a_k \mid k \geq n\}$$

- *limit inferior* of the sequence.

$$\liminf_{n\to\infty} a_n = \lim_{n\to\infty} \inf\{a_k \mid k \geq n\}$$

L Properties of limsup and liminf:

- Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a sequence. Then:

(i) $\limsup_{n\to\infty} a_n = \inf_{n\in\mathbb{N}} (\sup\{a_k \mid k \geq n\})$

(ii) $\liminf_{n\to\infty} a_n = \sup_{n\in\mathbb{N}} (\inf\{a_k \mid k \geq n\})$

(iii) If (a_n) is convergent, then

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \limsup_{n\to\infty} a_n = \liminf_{n\to\infty} a_n.$$

(iv) A bounded sequence (a_n) converges if and only if

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \limsup_{n\to\infty} a_n = \liminf_{n\to\infty} a_n.$$

T Characterization via limsup:

- Let $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0}$ be a bounded sequence and define

$$A = \limsup_{n\to\infty} a_n.$$

Then:

(i) A is an accumulation point of the sequence.

(ii) For every $\varepsilon > 0$, there are only finitely many indices n such that

$$a_n > A + \varepsilon.$$

(iii) For every $\varepsilon > 0$, there are infinitely many indices n such that

$$A - \varepsilon < a_n < A + \varepsilon.$$

An analogous statement holds for the limit inferior.

C Subsequence of a Bounded Sequence:

- Every bounded sequence of real numbers has at least one accumulation point and admits a convergent subsequence.

D Cauchy Sequence:

- A sequence $(a_n)_{n\in\mathbb{N}_0} \subset \mathbb{R}$ is called a *Cauchy sequence* if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0\ \exists N \in \mathbb{N} \text{ such that } \forall m, n \geq N: \ |a_n - a_m| < \varepsilon.$$

L Cauchy Sequences are Bounded:

- Every Cauchy sequence is bounded.

T Cauchy Criterion:

- A sequence of real numbers converges if and only if it is a Cauchy sequence.

1.5 Series

D Series:

• A (formal) expression of the form

$$a_0 + a_1 + a_2 + \cdots = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$$

is called a *series*. The terms a_n are called elements or summands. If the sequence of partial sums

$$s_n := \sum_{k=0}^{n} a_k$$

converges to a limit $L \in \mathbb{R}$, then the series is said to *converge*, and we write

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n = L.$$

Otherwise, the series is called *divergent*.

T Necessary Condition for Convergence:

• If the series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges, then necessarily

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = 0.$$

L Linearity of Series:

• Let $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ and $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n$ be convergent series. Then:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty}(a_n + b_n) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n,$$

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} Ca_n = C\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n \quad (C \in \mathbb{R}).$$

L Tail of a Series:

• Let $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ be a series. For any $N \in \mathbb{N}_0$:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n \text{ converges} \iff \sum_{n=N}^{\infty} a_n \text{ converges},$$

and in that case

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n = \sum_{n=0}^{N-1} a_n + \sum_{n=N}^{\infty} a_n.$$

T Series with Non-Negative Terms:

• Let $a_n \geq 0$ for all n. Then the sequence of partial sums

$$s_n = \sum_{k=0}^{n} a_k$$

is monotonically increasing. If (s_n) is bounded, then the series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges; otherwise, it diverges.

T Comparison Test:

• Let $\sum a_n$, $\sum b_n$, $\sum c_n$ be series with non-negative terms and suppose that for some N:

$$c_n \leq b_n \leq a_n \quad \text{for all } n \geq N.$$

Then:

- If $\sum a_n$ converges, then $\sum b_n$ converges (majorant test).
- If $\sum c_n$ diverges, then $\sum b_n$ diverges (minorant test).

D Absolute and Conditional Convergence:

• A series $\sum a_n$ is called *absolutely convergent* if $\sum |a_n|$ converges.

• It is called *conditionally convergent* if $\sum a_n$ converges but $\sum |a_n|$ does not.

T Riemann Rearrangement Theorem:

• Let $\sum a_n$ be a conditionally convergent series of real numbers, and let $L \in \mathbb{R}$. Then there exists a bijection $\varphi : \mathbb{N}_0 \to \mathbb{N}_0$ such that

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{\varphi(n)} = L.$$

T Rearrangement of Absolutely Convergent Series:

• Let $\sum a_n$ be absolutely convergent and let $\varphi : \mathbb{N}_0 \to \mathbb{N}_0$ be a bijection. Then

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{\varphi(n)}$$

converges absolutely and

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{\varphi(n)}.$$

T Leibniz Criterion:

• Let (a_n) be a monotonically decreasing sequence of non-negative real numbers with

$$\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = 0.$$

Then the alternating series

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty}(-1)^n a_n$$

converges. Moreover, for all $m \in \mathbb{N}_0$:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{2m+1}(-1)^n a_n \leq \sum_{n=0}^{\infty}(-1)^n a_n \leq \sum_{n=0}^{2m}(-1)^n a_n.$$

T Cauchy Criterion for Series:

• The series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n$ converges if and only if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists N such that for all $n \geq m \geq N$:

$$\left|\sum_{k=m+1}^{n} a_k\right| \leq \varepsilon.$$

T Absolute Convergence Implies Convergence:

• Every absolutely convergent series converges, and

$$\left|\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n\right| \leq \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n|.$$

T Root Test:

• Let (a_n) be a sequence and define

$$\rho = \limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}.$$

Then:

- If $\rho < 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ converges absolutely.
- If $\rho > 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ diverges.

T Ratio Test:

• Let (a_n) with $a_n \neq 0$ and define

$$\rho = \lim_{n\to\infty}\left|\frac{a_{n+1}}{a_n}\right|.$$

Then:

- If $\rho < 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ converges absolutely.
- If $\rho > 1$, the series $\sum a_n$ diverges.

T Cauchy Product:

• Let $\sum a_n$ and $\sum b_n$ be absolutely convergent. Then

$$\left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n\right)\left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n\right) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty}\left(\sum_{k=0}^{n} a_{n-k}b_k\right),$$

and the series on the right converges absolutely.

D Power Series:

• A series of the form

$$\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} c_k(x-a)^k$$

is called a *power series* centered at a with coefficients c_k.

D Convergence of a Power Series:

• For fixed x, if the sequence of partial sums

$$s_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n} c_k(x-a)^k$$

converges, then the power series is said to converge at x.

T Radius of Convergence:

• Every power series has a radius of convergence R such that:

- The series converges for $|x-a| < R$,
- The series diverges for $|x-a| > R$.

The interval $(a - R, a + R)$ is called the interval of convergence. The radius R is given by:

$$\rho = \limsup_{n \to \infty} |c_n|^{1/n}.$$

Then

$$R = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } \rho = \infty, \\ \frac{1}{\rho} & \text{if } 0 < \rho < \infty, \\ \infty & \text{if } \rho = 0. \end{cases}$$

2 Functions

2.1 Function basics

D Function:

• A function (mapping) is a rule that assigns to each admissible input exactly one output in the target set. The set of all possible inputs is called the *domain*, denoted by domain(f) or D. The set of all actually attained outputs is called the *image*, denoted by image(f) or W.

$$f : \text{domain}(f) \to \text{range}(f), \quad x \mapsto f(x).$$

The input is called the *independent variable*, the output the *dependent variable*.

D Restriction of a Function:

• Let $f : D(f) \to \mathbb{R}$ and let $D_0 \subseteq D(f)$. The restriction of f to D_0 is the function

$$f|_{D_0} : D_0 \to \mathbb{R}, \quad f|_{D_0}(x) = f(x).$$

Note that f and $f|_{D_0}$ are, in general, different functions.

D Bounded Functions:

• Let $f : D(f) \to \mathbb{R}$.

- f is *bounded above* if there exists $M \in \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$f(x) \leq M \quad \forall x \in D(f).$$

- f is *bounded below* if there exists $M \in \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$f(x) \geq M \quad \forall x \in D(f).$$

- f is *bounded* if there exists $M \in \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$|f(x)| \leq M \quad \forall x \in D(f).$$

D Injective, Surjective, Bijective:

• Let $f : X \to Y$.

- f is *injective* if

$$f(x_1) = f(x_2) \Rightarrow x_1 = x_2.$$

- f is *surjective* if

$$\forall y \in Y \; \exists x \in X : f(x) = y.$$

- f is *bijective* if it is both injective and surjective.

D Composition:

• Let $f : X \to Y$ and $g : Y \to Z$. The composition is defined by

$$g \circ f : X \to Z, \quad (g \circ f)(x) = g(f(x)).$$

D Identity and Inverse:

• For a set X, the identity function is defined by

$$\text{id}_X(x) = x \quad \forall x \in X.$$

If $f : X \to Y$ is bijective, then there exists a unique function

$$f^{-1} : Y \to X$$

such that

$$f^{-1} \circ f = \text{id}_X, \quad f \circ f^{-1} = \text{id}_Y.$$

This function is called the *inverse* of f.

D Monotonicity:

• Let $f : D(f) \subseteq \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$.

- f is *monotonically increasing* if

$$x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) \leq f(x_2).$$

- f is *strictly increasing* if

$$x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) < f(x_2).$$

- f is *monotonically decreasing* if

$$x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) \geq f(x_2).$$

- f is *strictly decreasing* if

$$x_1 < x_2 \Rightarrow f(x_1) > f(x_2).$$

T Strict Monotonicity Implies Injectivity:

• Every strictly monotone function is injective.

D Even and Odd Functions:

• Let $f : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$.

- f is *even* if

$$f(-x) = f(x).$$

- f is *odd* if

$$f(-x) = -f(x).$$

D Convexity and Concavity (Geometric):

• The graph of a function is called

- *convex* if it bends to the left when moving from left to right,
- *concave* if it bends to the right when moving from left to right.

2.2 Limits of Functions

D Limit of a Function:

• Let $f : D(f) \to \mathbb{R}$ and $x_0 \in \mathbb{R}$. A number $L \in \mathbb{R}$ is called the limit of $f(x)$ at x_0 if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0 \; \exists \delta > 0 \text{ such that } \quad x \in D(f), \; |x - x_0| < \delta \Rightarrow |f(x) - L| < \varepsilon.$$

The limit is uniquely determined.

D One-Sided Limits:

• One-Sided Limits

- Right-hand limit:

$$\lim_{x \to x_0^+} f(x) = L$$

- Left-hand limit:

$$\lim_{x \to x_0^-} f(x) = L$$

D Limits at Infinity:

• Limits at Infinity

- $\lim_{x \to \infty} f(x) = L$
- $\lim_{x \to -\infty} f(x) = L$

D Infinite Limits:

• Infinite Limits

- $\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = \infty$
- $\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = -\infty$

T Limit Laws:

• Let

$$\lim_{x \to c} f(x) = K, \quad \lim_{x \to c} g(x) = L, \quad K, L \neq \pm\infty.$$

Then:

- $\lim_{x \to c}(f + g) = K + L$
- $\lim_{x \to c}(f - g) = K - L$
- $\lim_{x \to c}(fg) = KL$
- $\lim_{x \to c}(Af) = AK$
- If $L \neq 0$: $\lim_{x \to c} \frac{f}{g} = \frac{K}{L}$

2.3 Additional

$\lim_{x\to\infty} \frac{1}{x} = 0$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right) = 1$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{\log(1-x)}{x} = -1$	$\lim_{x\to 0} x\log x = 0$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} e^x = \infty$	$\lim_{x\to-\infty} e^x = 0$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{1-\cos x}{x^2} = \frac{1}{2}$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{e^x-1}{x} = 1$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} e^{-x} = 0$	$\lim_{x\to-\infty} e^{-x} = \infty$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{x}{\arctan x} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \arctan x = \frac{\pi}{2}$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} \frac{e^x}{x^m} = \infty$	$\lim_{x\to-\infty} xe^x = 0$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \left(\frac{x}{x+k}\right)^x = e^{-k}$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{e^x-1}{x} = 1$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} \ln x = \infty$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \ln x = -\infty$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{a^x-1}{x} = \ln(a),\ a>0$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{e^{ax}-1}{x} = a$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} (1+x)^{1/x} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to 0} (1+x)^{1/x} = e$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{\ln(1+x)}{x} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to 1} \frac{\ln x}{x-1} = 1$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} \left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right)^b = 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right)^b = 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \frac{\ln x}{x} = 0$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \frac{\log x}{x^\alpha} = 0$
$\lim_{x\to\infty} x^a q^x = 0,\ 0 \le q < 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} n^{1/n} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \sqrt[x]{x} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \frac{2x}{2^x} = 0$
$\lim_{x\to\pm\infty} \left(1+\frac{1}{x}\right)^x = e$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \left(1-\frac{1}{x}\right)^x = \frac{1}{e}$	$\lim_{x\to(\pi/2)^-} \tan x = +\infty$	$\lim_{x\to(\pi/2)^+} \tan x = -\infty$
$\lim_{x\to\pm\infty} \left(1+\frac{k}{x}\right)^{mx} = e^{km}$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{\sin x}{x} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to\infty} \frac{\sin x}{x} = 0$	$\lim_{x\to 0^+} x\ln x = 0$
$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{1}{\cos x} = 1$	$\lim_{x\to 0} \frac{\cos x - 1}{x} = 0$		

Table 1: Important limits